Chapter 2 — Basics: Types, Variables and Operators

Every Java program is built from the same small parts: **variables** that hold **values** of some **type** (the kind of data — whole number, decimal, text, true/false — which decides what you can do with it), **operators** that combine them, and **statements** that tell the computer what to do in order. This chapter covers those parts precisely — including the places where Java silently does something you might not expect (integer overflow — a number too big for its type silently wrapping round; integer division — whole-number division that drops the remainder; floating-point rounding — decimals stored only approximately; `==` on strings). It ends with text blocks (multi-line strings), `String` basics and reading/writing the console (the text terminal the program runs in).

What you'll learn

#	Topic	You will be able to…
2.1	Statements, identifiers, keywords, comments	read and name things legally
2.2	Variables	declare, initialise, scope and `final` variables
2.3	Primitive types	pick the right primitive and know its range
2.4	Literals	write numbers, characters and booleans in every legal form
2.5	Reference types and `null`	tell primitives from references
2.6	`var`	use local type inference well (and know its limits)
2.7	Conversions and casting	predict widening, narrowing, promotion and compound-assignment casts
2.8	Operators	use arithmetic, relational, logical, bitwise, ternary operators
2.9	Precedence and associativity	evaluate any expression by hand
2.10	Integer overflow	detect and prevent silent wrap-around
2.11	Floating point	explain `0.1 + 0.2`, NaN, infinity, and when to use `BigDecimal`
2.12	Strings and text blocks	use the core `String` operations and multi-line literals
2.13	Console output and input	`println` / `printf`, `Scanner`, `BufferedReader`, `Console`, `IO`

Code: `code/`, compiled with `javac --release 25`, output pasted from real runs. Exam-level traps on this material live in the OCP repo: Chapter 1 — Building Blocks (types, literals, `var`, text blocks, scope) and Chapter 2 — Operators (promotion, casting, precedence).

2.1 Statements, identifiers, keywords and comments

What it is

- A **statement** is one complete instruction, ending in `;` (e.g. `int x = 5;`). A **block** `{ … }` groups statements and can appear wherever a statement can.
- An **expression** is code that produces a value (`x + 1`, `name.length()`, `a > b`). An *expression statement* is an expression used as a statement (`x++;`, `print(...)`).

- An **identifier** is a name you choose for a variable, method (a named block of code you can call), class (a blueprint describing a kind of object) or package (a named group of related classes, like a folder).

Identifier rules

Rule	Legal	Illegal
Starts with a letter, `$` or `_`	`total`, `$price`, `_temp`	`2fast`
Then letters, digits, `$`, `_`	`item2`, `max_value`	`my-name`, `a b`
Not a reserved keyword (a word the language uses itself) or the literals `true`, `false`, `null`	`klass`, `clazz`	`class`, `null`
A single `_` is not an identifier (it is a keyword; see *unnamed variables*, Chapter 3)	`__`	`_`
Case-sensitive	`count` ≠ `Count`	—

Unicode (the worldwide standard that gives every character in every script a number) letters are allowed (`größe`), and `$` is legal but by convention reserved for generated code.

Keywords

Java 25 has **51 reserved keywords** that can never be identifiers — e.g. `class`, `int`, `if`, `for`, `new`, `static`, `final`, `return`, `try`, plus `const` and `goto` (reserved but unused), `strictfp` (obsolete) and `_`. It also has **17 contextual keywords** that are keywords only in certain positions, so old code using them as names still compiles: `var`, `yield`, `record`, `sealed`, `non-sealed`, `permits`, `when`, and the module words `module`, `open`, `opens`, `exports`, `requires`, `transitive`, `uses`, `provides`, `to`, `with`. `true`, `false` and `null` are *literals* (values written directly in the code), not keywords, but are still unusable as names.

Comments

```
// line comment: to the end of the line
/* block comment:
   can span lines (cannot be nested) */
/** Javadoc comment: documents the next class, method or field. @param, @return tags… */
```

Write comments that explain **why**, not what the code already says.

2.2 Variables

What it is

A **variable** is a named storage location with a fixed **type**. Think of a labelled box: the label is the name, the box's shape (type) decides what may go in.

How it works

1. **Declare**: `type name;` — reserves the name and type.
2. **Initialise**: give it a first value (`name = value;`), often together: `int age = 30;`.
3. **Use/reassign**: read it in expressions, assign a new value of the same type.

4. The variable exists within its **scope** — the block `{ }` it was declared in, from the declaration to the closing brace.

`code/Variables.java`:

```java
static int counter;          // field: gets a default value (0) automatically

public static void main(String[] args) {
    int age;                 // declaration
    age = 30;                // initialisation (assignment)
    int year = 2025, month = 9;   // declare + initialise several of the same type
    age = age + 1;           // reassignment
    final double TAX_RATE = 0.18; // final: can be assigned exactly once
    // TAX_RATE = 0.2;       // compile error: cannot assign a value to final variable TAX_RATE

    System.out.println("age=" + age + " year=" + year + " month=" + month);
    System.out.println("TAX_RATE=" + TAX_RATE + " counter (field default)=" + counter);

    {                                // an inner block
        int inner = 5;               // exists only inside these braces
        System.out.println("inner=" + inner + ", age visible here too: " + age);
    }
    // System.out.println(inner);      // compile error: cannot find symbol

    int count;
    if (age > 18) count = 1; else count = 0;   // definitely assigned on every path
    System.out.println("count=" + count);
}
```

Output:

```
age=31 year=2025 month=9
TAX_RATE=0.18 counter (field default)=0
inner=5, age visible here too: 31
count=1
```

Local variables vs fields

	Local variable (inside a method/block)	Field (inside a class)
Default value	**None** — must be assigned before use, or compile error *"variable x might not have been initialized"*	Yes: `0`, `0.0`, `false`, `'\u0000'`, or `null` for references
Lifetime	Until the block ends	As long as the object (instance field — one copy per object) or class (`static` field — one copy shared by the whole class)
Modifiers	Only `final`	Access modifiers (`public`, `private`… — who may use it), `static`, `final`, … (Chapter 5)

The compiler's **definite assignment** analysis checks that every path assigns a local before it is read — that is why `count` above compiles: both branches assign it.

`final`

`final` means *assigned once*. For a primitive, the value can never change; for a reference, the variable cannot point elsewhere but the **object itself can still change** (`final List<String> xs = new ArrayList<>(); xs.add("ok");` is legal — `List`/`ArrayList` is a growable list of items, covered in

Chapter 10). Use `final` for constants (`static final int MAX_RETRIES = 3;`) and wherever it clarifies intent.

Common mistakes

- Reading a local before assigning it in every branch.
- Redeclaring a name already in scope (`int x = 1; { int x = 2; }` is a compile error — locals cannot shadow locals, i.e. hide an outer variable by reusing its name).
- Thinking `final` makes an object immutable (impossible to change after it is created).

Self-check

1. Does `int n; System.out.println(n);` compile inside a method? → No — locals have no default value.
2. Can a `final List` have elements added? → Yes; only the reference is fixed.
3. What value does an uninitialised `boolean` field have? → `false`.

2.3 Primitive types

What it is

Java has exactly **eight primitive types** — simple values stored directly (not as objects). Everything else is a reference type (objects). Sizes and ranges are fixed by the language on every platform, unlike C. Sizes are measured in **bits** — a bit is a single binary digit, 0 or 1; 8 bits make one **byte**.

`code/Primitives.java` prints the real values from the wrapper classes (object versions of each primitive, see 2.5):

```
System.out.printf("%-8s %5d  %-22d %d%n", "int", Integer.SIZE, Integer.MIN_VALUE, Integer.MAX_VALUE);
// ... one line per type
```

Output:

```
type      bits  min                   max
byte         8  -128                  127
short       16  -32768                 32767
int         32  -2147483648            2147483647
long        64  -9223372036854775808   9223372036854775807
char        16  0                     65535
float       32  1.4E-45               3.4028235E38
double      64  4.9E-324              1.7976931348623157E308
boolean  true or false (size not specified by the language)
```

Type	Kind	Size	Range / precision	Default (fields)	Use it for
`byte`	signed integer	8 bits	−128 … 127	`0`	raw binary data, I/O buffers
`short`	signed integer	16 bits	−32 768 … 32 767	`0`	rarely — large arrays of small numbers
`int`	signed integer	32 bits	about ±2.1 billion (-2^{31} … $2^{31}-1$)	`0`	**the default integer** — counts, indexes
`long`	signed integer	64 bits	about $\pm 9.2 \times 10^{18}$	`0L`	timestamps (ms since 1970), IDs, money in cents, big counters
`float`	IEEE 754 binary floating point	32 bits	~6–7 significant decimal digits, up to $\pm 3.4 \times 10^{38}$	`0.0f`	graphics, large arrays where memory matters
`double`	IEEE 754 binary floating point	64 bits	~15–16 significant digits, up to $\pm 1.8 \times 10^{308}$	`0.0`	**the default decimal** — measurements, science
`char`	unsigned UTF-16 code unit	16 bits	`'\u0000'` … `'\uFFFF'` (0 … 65 535)	`'\u0000'`	single characters
`boolean`	logical	not specified	`true`, `false`	`false`	conditions, flags

Notes:

- *Signed* means the type can hold negative numbers; *unsigned* means zero and positives only. **IEEE 754** is the international standard for how computers store numbers with a decimal point. **UTF-16** is a text encoding that stores characters as 16-bit units. An *I/O buffer* is a block of memory used to hold data being read or written. *Epoch milliseconds* count milliseconds since 1 January 1970 UTC, the usual way computers store a point in time.
- `float`/`double` `MIN_VALUE` is the smallest **positive** value, not the most negative; the most negative is `-Double.MAX_VALUE`.
- A `char` is a UTF-16 *code unit*. Characters outside the Basic Multilingual Plane (the first 65 536 Unicode characters; many emoji lie beyond it) need two `char`s (a *surrogate pair*); see Chapter 7.
- `boolean` is not a number: `if (1)` does not compile, and you cannot cast between `boolean` and `int`.

Choosing a type

Need	Use
Whole numbers that fit in ±2 billion	`int`
Bigger whole numbers, epoch milliseconds, file sizes	`long`
Decimal measurements where tiny rounding is fine	`double`
Money, exact decimal arithmetic	`long` cents or `BigDecimal` (Java's exact decimal-number class) — never `double` (2.11)
Arbitrary-size integers	`BigInteger` (Chapter 7)
Yes/no	`boolean`

Self-check

1. Largest `int`? → 2 147 483 647 (`Integer.MAX_VALUE`, $2^{31}-1$).
2. Is `char` signed? → No, it is unsigned 16-bit (0–65 535).
3. Why is `Double.MIN_VALUE` positive? → It is the smallest positive (subnormal — a tiny value below the normal range, stored with fewer digits of precision) double, not the most negative.

2.4 Literals

What it is

A **literal** is a value written directly in source code. Its form decides its type. Numbers can be written in several bases: **hexadecimal** (base 16, digits 0–9 and A–F, prefix `0x`), **octal** (base 8, prefix `0`) and **binary** (base 2, prefix `0b`).

`code/Literals.java`:

```
int decimal = 255, hex = 0xFF, octal = 0377, binary = 0b1111_1111;
long big = 9_000_000_000L;              // L suffix: needed beyond int range
float price = 19.99f;                   // f suffix: literal is double otherwise
double sci = 6.022e23, plain = 3.14;
char letter = 'A', unicode = 'é', tab = '\t';
boolean ready = true;
String text = "He said \"hi\"\\n";      // escaped quote and backslash

System.out.println(decimal + " " + hex + " " + octal + " " + binary);
System.out.println(big + " " + price + " " + sci + " " + plain);
System.out.println(letter + " " + unicode + " [" + tab + "] " + ready);
System.out.println(text);
System.out.println("char 'A' as a number: " + (int) letter + ", 'A' + 1 = " + (letter + 1)
        + ", (char) ('A' + 1) = " + (char) (letter + 1));
```

Output:

```
255 255 255 255
9000000000 19.99 6.022E23 3.14
A é [   ] true
He said "hi"\n
char 'A' as a number: 65, 'A' + 1 = 66, (char) ('A' + 1) = B
Integer.toBinaryString(10) = 1010, toHexString(255) = ff
```

Literal	Form	Type
Decimal integer	`42`, `1_000_000`	`int`
Long	`42L` (use capital `L`; `l` looks like `1`)	`long`
Hexadecimal	`0xFF`, `0xCAFE_BABE`	`int` (or `long` with `L`)
Octal	leading `0`: `0377` = 255	`int` — beware: `010` is **8**
Binary	`0b1010` (Java 7)	`int`
Floating point	`3.14`, `1e-9`, `.5`, `2.`	`double`
Float	`3.14f`	`float`
Character	`'A'`, `'\n'`, `'é'`	`char`
Boolean	`true`, `false`	`boolean`
String	`"text"`, text blocks `"""…"""`	`String`
Null	`null`	the null type (assignable to any reference)

Underscores (Java 7) may separate digits for readability — `1_000_000`, `0b1111_0000` — but not at the start or end of the digits, next to the decimal point, next to the `L`/`f` suffix, or directly after `0x`/`0b`.

Escape sequences in `char` and `String` literals: `\n` newline, `\t` tab, `\r` carriage return, `\b` backspace, `\f` form feed, `\"`, `\'`, `\\`, `\s` space (Java 15), octal `\0`–`\377`, and Unicode `\uXXXX`.

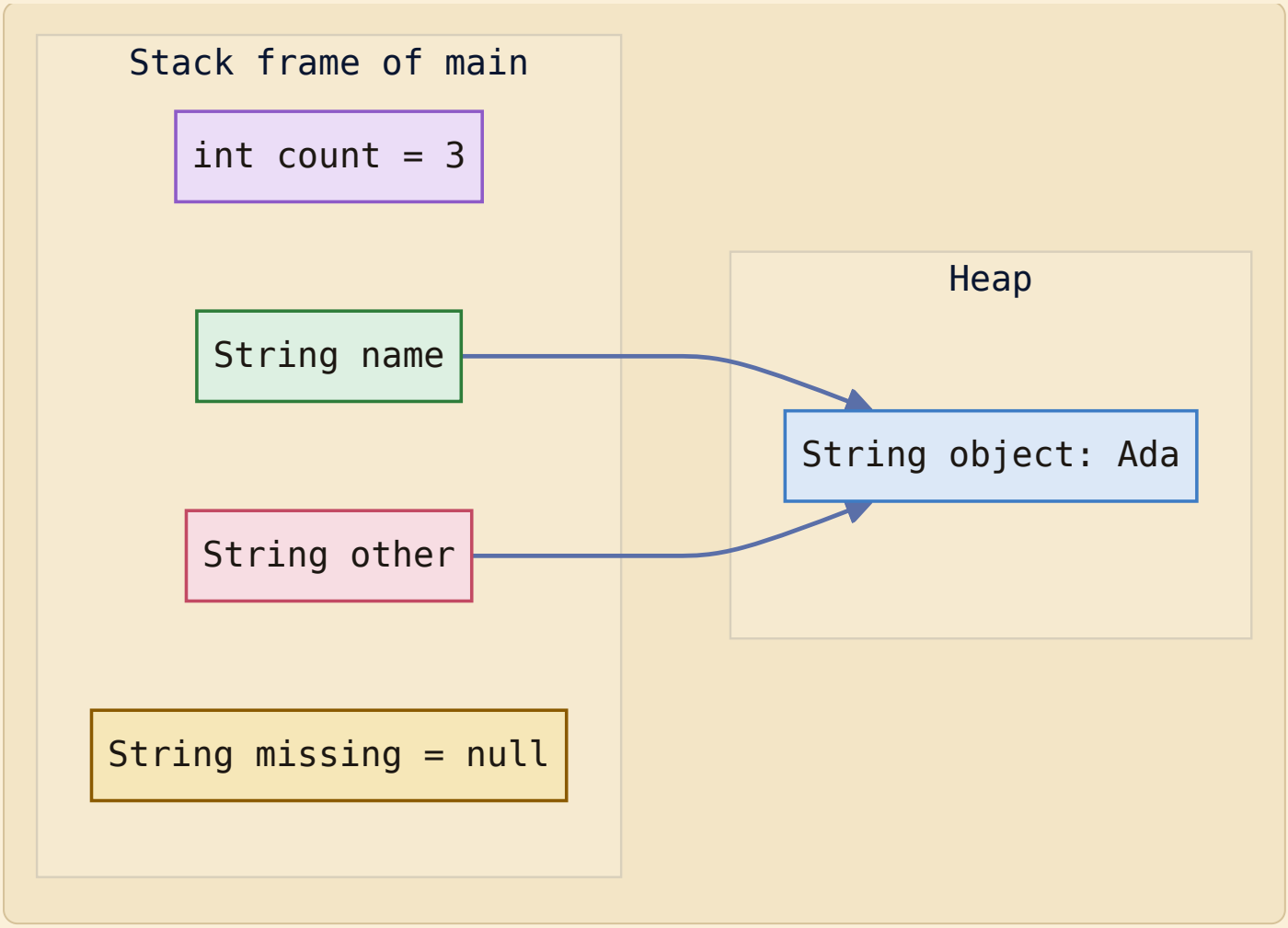
Common mistakes

- `long big = 9000000000;` → compile error *"integer number too large"*: the literal is an `int` until you add `L`.
- `float f = 1.5;` → compile error (*possible lossy conversion from double to float*); write `1.5f`.
- Leading zeros for alignment: `int code = 010;` is 8.

2.5 Reference types and `null`

What it is

Any type that is not one of the eight primitives is a **reference type**: classes (`String`, `Scanner`), interfaces (`List`), arrays (`int[]`), enums and records. (Interfaces, arrays, enums and records are each explained in Chapters 4–6; for now, just know they are all reference types.) A variable of a reference type holds a **reference** — a handle that points to an object on the heap (the memory area where all objects live; see 1.8) — or the special value `null`, meaning "points to nothing".



- Assigning a reference (`other = name`) copies the **arrow**, not the object: both variables now point to the same `String`.
- Calling a method through `null` throws `NullPointerException` at run time. To *throw* an **exception** is to signal an error by creating an error object that stops normal execution unless some code catches it (Chapter 8). Since Java 14 (JEP 358, on by default from Java 15), these *helpful NullPointerException* messages name exactly what was null, e.g. *Cannot invoke "String.length()" because "name" is null*.

	Primitive	**Reference**
Holds	the value itself	a pointer to an object, or `null`
Default (field)	`0` / `false` / `'\u0000'`	`null`
`==` compares	values	**identity** (same object?)
Has methods	no	yes (`name.length()`)
Name style	lowercase keyword (`int`)	a type name (`String`, `Integer`)

Every primitive has a **wrapper class** (`Integer`, `Double`, `Character`, `Boolean`…) so it can be used where an object is required, e.g. in `List<Integer>` (a list of `Integer` objects; the `<…>` part is a *generic* type argument, Chapter 9). Java converts automatically (*autoboxing/unboxing*). The details — and the `Integer` cache trap — are in Chapter 7.

2.6 `var` — local variable type inference (Java 10)

What it is

`var` (Java 10, JEP 286) lets the compiler **infer** (work out by itself) a local variable's type from its initialiser (the `= value` part of the declaration). The variable is still statically typed — the type is fixed at compile time; you just do not write it.

`code/VarDemo.java`:

```
var count = 10;                          // int
var ratio = 10 / 4.0;                    // double
var name = "Ada";                        // String
var scores = new HashMap<String, List<Integer>>();   // HashMap<String, List<Integer>>
scores.put(name, new ArrayList<>(List.of(90, 85)));
for (var entry : scores.entrySet()) {    // Map.Entry<String, List<Integer>>
    System.out.println(entry.getKey() + " -> " + entry.getValue());
}
// count = "ten";                        // compile error: the type is fixed at int
var items = new ArrayList<>();           // careful: ArrayList<Object>
items.add(1); items.add("two");
System.out.println(count + " " + ratio + " " + items);
```

Output:

```
Ada -> [90, 85]
10 2.5 [1, two]
{a=1}
```

Where `var` is allowed

Allowed	Not allowed
Local variables with an initialiser	Fields, method parameters, return types
`for` loop variables and for-each variables	Without initialiser: `var x;`
try-with-resources variables (auto-closing resources, Chapter 8)	`var x = null;` (no type to infer)
Lambda (short inline function) parameters (Java 11): `(var a, var b) -> a + b` — useful to add annotations (`@`-tags such as `@Override` that attach extra information)	Array initialiser alone: `var a = {1, 2};`
	Multiple variables: `var a = 1, b = 2;`

`var` is a contextual keyword: `var var = 1;` compiles, but you cannot name a *type* `var`.

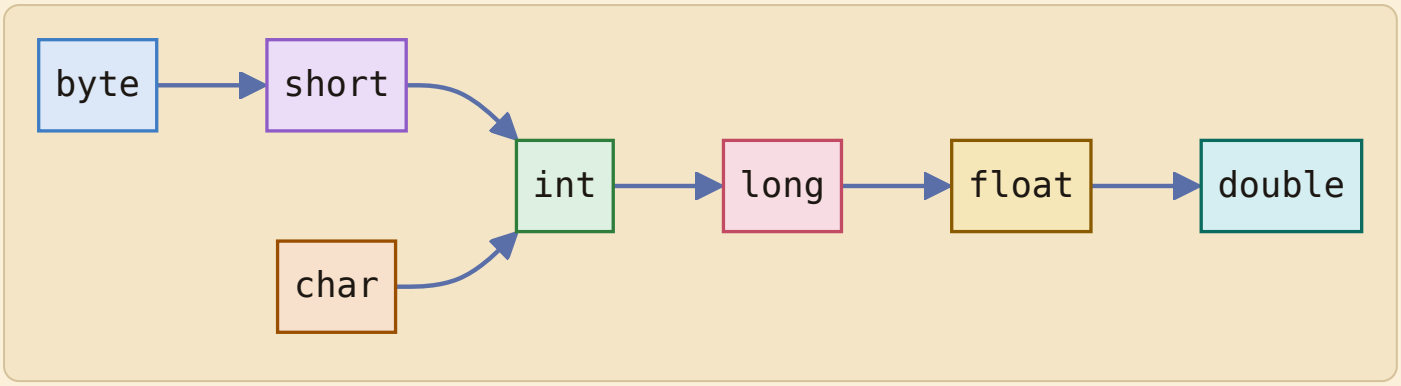
Trade-offs and style

Use `var` when the type is obvious from the right-hand side (`new`, a well-named factory — a method that creates and returns objects) or long and noisy (generic types such as `Map<String, List<Integer>>`). Avoid it when the reader cannot see the type (`var result = service.process();`) or when the inferred type differs from what you want (`var list = new ArrayList<>()` becomes `ArrayList<Object>`; `var x = 1;` is `int`, not `long`). The OpenJDK team's *Local Variable Type Inference Style Guidelines* say the same: choose clarity for the reader.

2.7 Type conversion: widening, narrowing, casting, promotion

What it is

Converting a value from one type to another. Java does **safe** conversions automatically and requires an explicit **cast** — `(type) value` — for risky ones.



Arrows show **widening primitive conversions**, done automatically (`int i = 'A'; long l = i; double d = l;`). Going against the arrows is **narrowing** and needs a cast.

How it works

1. **Widening** (automatic): the target type can hold every value… *almost*. `int → float`, `long → float` and `long → double` can lose **precision** (exact digits), not magnitude (overall size): a `float` has 24 bits of mantissa (the part of a floating-point number that stores its significant digits).
2. **Narrowing** (needs a cast): `(int) 3.99` truncates (chops off the fraction) toward zero to `3`; `(byte) 300` keeps the low 8 bits (300 − 256 = 44). Floating → integer conversion clamps out-of-range values to MIN/MAX and turns NaN ("Not a Number", the result of undefined maths such as 0.0/0) into 0.
3. **Numeric promotion** in expressions: before a binary (two-input) arithmetic operator runs, `byte`, `short` and `char` operands (the values an operator works on) become `int`; if either operand is `long`, `float` or `double`, both are converted to the wider of these. So `byte + byte` is an `int`.
4. **Compile-time constants** (values the compiler can work out itself, such as literals or `final` variables set from literals) may be assigned to a narrower type if they fit: `byte b = 10 + 20;` is fine; `byte b = x + y;` (variables) is not.
5. **Compound assignment** (`+=`, `-=`, `*=`…) includes a hidden cast: `x += 5` means `x = (T) (x + 5)` where `T` is `x`'s type.

`code/Conversions.java` (key lines):

```java
double pi = 3.99;
int truncated = (int) pi;          // narrowing needs a cast; drops the fraction
long rounded = Math.round(pi);     // rounding is a method, not a cast

byte b = (byte) 300;               // keeps only the low 8 bits: 300 - 256 = 44
int precise = 123_456_789;
float f = precise;                 // widening but LOSSY: float has 24 bits of precision

byte x = 10, y = 20;
// byte sum = x + y;               // compile error: x + y is an int
byte sum = (byte) (x + y);
x += 5;                            // compound assignment hides a cast: x = (byte) (x + 5)

long wrong = 1_000_000 * 1_000_000;       // int overflow BEFORE widening to long
long right = 1_000_000L * 1_000_000;
```

Output:

```
widened: 100 100.0
(int) 3.99 = 3, Math.round(3.99) = 4
(byte) 300 = 44, (byte) 200 = -56
(int) 1e20 = 2147483647, (int) Double.NaN = 0
int 123456789 -> float -> int: 123456792
sum=30 sum2=30 x=15
constant=30 'a'+1=98 7/2=3 7/2.0=3.5
wrong=-727379968 right=1000000000000
```

The last line is the classic bug: the multiplication happens in `int` (both operands are `int`), overflows, and only then is the wrong result widened to `long`. Put `L` on the **first** operand.

Common mistakes

- Expecting `(int)` to round. It truncates toward zero: `(int) -3.99` is `-3`. Use `Math.round`, `Math.floor`, `Math.ceil`.
- `7 / 2` is `3`: both operands are `int`, so the division is integer division. Write `7 / 2.0` or `(double) 7 / 2`. Note `(double) (7 / 2)` is `3.0` — the cast came too late.
- Assuming widening is always lossless: `int → float` can change the value.

In the interview

Q: Why doesn't `short s = 1; s = s + 1;` compile, but `s += 1;` does? `s + 1` is promoted to `int`, and assigning an `int` to a `short` needs a cast. Compound assignment includes that cast implicitly.

- *What is `(byte) 200`?* −56: the low 8 bits `11001000` read as a signed byte.
- *Is `long → double` safe?* Magnitude yes, precision no: doubles have 53 bits of mantissa, longs 64.

Self-check

1. `char c = 'a'; c + 1` — type and value? → `int`, 98.
2. `(int) 7.9 + (int) -7.9` → 7 + (−7) = 0.
3. Fix `long ms = 24 * 60 * 60 * 1000 * 365;` → `24L * 60 * 60 * 1000 * 365`.

2.8 Operators

What it is

An **operator** is a symbol that computes a value from one (*unary*), two (*binary*) or three (*ternary*) operands.

Arithmetic: `+ - * / %` and `++ --`

`code/Arithmetic.java`:

```
System.out.println("17 / 5 = " + 17 / 5 + ", 17 % 5 = " + 17 % 5);
System.out.println("-17 / 5 = " + -17 / 5 + ", -17 % 5 = " + -17 % 5
        + ", Math.floorMod(-17, 5) = " + Math.floorMod(-17, 5));
System.out.println("17.0 / 5 = " + 17.0 / 5 + ", 5.5 % 2 = " + 5.5 % 2);
System.out.println("1.0 / 0 = " + 1.0 / 0 + ", 0.0 / 0 = " + 0.0 / 0);
try { System.out.println(1 / 0); }
catch (ArithmeticException e) { System.out.println("1 / 0 -> ArithmeticException: " + e.getMessage());
}

int a = 5;
int b = a++;     // post-increment: b gets the old value, then a becomes 6
int c = ++a;     // pre-increment: a becomes 7, then c gets 7
int n = 3;
int result = n++ + ++n;   // 3 + 5
```

Output:

```
17 / 5 = 3, 17 % 5 = 2
-17 / 5 = -3, -17 % 5 = -2, Math.floorMod(-17, 5) = 3
17.0 / 5 = 3.4, 5.5 % 2 = 1.5
1.0 / 0 = Infinity, 0.0 / 0 = NaN
1 / 0 -> ArithmeticException: / by zero
a=7 b=5 c=7
n++ + ++n with n=3 -> 8, n=5
compound ops -> x=1
-(-5) = 5, +3 = 3
```

Rule	Detail
Integer `/` truncates toward zero	`-17 / 5` is `-3`, not `-4`
`%` takes the sign of the **dividend** (the number being divided)	`-17 % 5` is `-2`. For a always-non-negative result (e.g. circular buffers — fixed-size arrays that wrap round to the start, "day of week"), use `Math.floorMod`
Integer division by zero	throws `ArithmeticException`
Floating division by zero	no exception: `Infinity`, `-Infinity` or `NaN`
`x++` vs `++x`	both add 1 to `x`; the *expression's value* is the old value (postfix) or the new value (prefix)
`+` with a `String` operand	means concatenation (joining text end to end) (2.12)

Style: use `++`/`--` as standalone statements (`i++;`). Expressions like `n++ + ++n` are legal and deterministic (always give the same result; Java evaluates operands left to right) but unreadable.

Assignment operators

`=`, and compound `+= -= *= /= %= &= |= ^= <<= >>= >>>=`. Assignment is itself an expression whose value is the assigned value, and it is right-associative: `a = b = c = 7` assigns 7 to all three.

Relational and equality: `< <= > >= == !=`, `instanceof`

All return `boolean`. For **primitives**, `==` compares values. For **references**, `==` compares **identity** — whether both sides point to the *same object*. To compare contents, call `equals` (a method every object has for content comparison).

`code/Comparison.java`:

```
String s1 = "java";
String s2 = new String("java");
System.out.println("s1 == s2: " + (s1 == s2) + ", s1.equals(s2): " + s1.equals(s2));
```

Output:

```
s1 == s2: false, s1.equals(s2): true
```

`x instanceof Type` tests whether a reference points to an object of that type (false for `null`). The pattern form `x instanceof String s` is in Chapter 3.

Logical: `&& || !` and `& | ^`

Operator	Name	Evaluates right side?
`&&`	conditional AND	only if left is `true` (**short-circuit**)
`||`	conditional OR	only if left is `false` (short-circuit)
`!`	NOT	—
`&`, `|`	logical AND / OR on booleans	**always** both sides
`^`	XOR (exactly one true)	always both

```
static boolean check(String label, boolean value) {
    System.out.println("  evaluated " + label);
    return value;
}
boolean r1 = check("left", false) && check("right", true);
boolean r2 = check("left", false) & check("right", true);

String name = null;
if (name != null && name.length() > 3) System.out.println("long name");   // safe: && stops at null
```

Output:

```
&& short-circuits:
  evaluated left
& evaluates both:
  evaluated left
  evaluated right
r1=false r2=false true ^ true=false !true=false
null-safe check with && worked
```

Short-circuiting is what makes the *null guard* idiom (a common coding pattern) `x != null && x.foo()` safe. With `&` it would throw `NullPointerException`.

Ternary `?:`

`condition ? valueIfTrue : valueIfFalse` is an **expression** (it produces a value), unlike `if`:

```
String category = age < 13 ? "child" : age < 20 ? "teen" : "adult";   // "adult" for 20
```

Keep it to one level; nested ternaries become a puzzle — use `if` or a `switch` expression (Chapter 3).

Bitwise and shift: `& | ^ ~ << >> >>>`

On integer types these work on individual bits. A *flag* is a yes/no setting stored in one bit; a *mask* is a value used with `&` to pick out particular bits. `code/Bitwise.java`:

```
static final int READ = 1, WRITE = 2, EXEC = 4;   // 001, 010, 100
int a = 0b1100, b = 0b1010;
System.out.println("a & b = " + bin(a & b) + ", a | b = " + bin(a | b)
        + ", a ^ b = " + bin(a ^ b) + ", ~a = " + (~a));
System.out.println("1 << 4 = " + (1 << 4) + ", 64 >> 2 = " + (64 >> 2));
System.out.println("-16 >> 2 = " + (-16 >> 2) + ", -16 >>> 28 = " + (-16 >>> 28));
int perms = READ | WRITE;                // set two flags
perms &= ~WRITE;                         // clear a flag
```

Output:

```
a & b = 1000, a | b = 1110, a ^ b = 110, ~a = -13
1 << 4 = 16, 64 >> 2 = 16
-16 >> 2 = -4, -16 >>> 28 = 15
1 << 32 = 1  (shift distance is taken mod 32 for int)
can write? true, can exec? false
after clearing WRITE: 1
is 12 even? true
```

Operator	Meaning	Example
`&`	1 where both bits are 1	mask/test a flag: `(perms & WRITE) != 0`
`|`	1 where either is 1	set a flag
`^`	1 where bits differ	toggle; `a ^ a == 0`
`~`	flip every bit; `~x == -x - 1`	clear with `& ~FLAG`
`<<`	shift left, fill with 0; `x << n` = $x \cdot 2^n$ (until overflow)	`1 << k` = k-th bit
`>>`	*arithmetic* shift right, copies the sign bit (the top bit: 1 means negative)	`-16 >> 2 = -4`
`>>>`	*logical* shift right, fills with 0	unsigned view of negatives

The shift distance uses only the low 5 bits for `int` (6 for `long`), so `1 << 32 == 1`. Real uses: permission flags, hash functions (functions that turn a value into a number used to decide where to store it; `HashMap`, Java's key→value lookup table, mixes `h ^ (h >>> 16)`), `EnumSet`'s bit vector, network protocols, and bit tricks in interviews (Chapter 19).

Self-check

1. `-7 / 2` and `-7 % 2`? → `-3` and `-1`.
2. Why is `if (s != null & s.isEmpty())` dangerous? → `&` evaluates both sides, so it throws when `s` is null.
3. `int x = 5; int y = x++ * 2;` → `y = 10`, `x = 6`.
4. Two strings print the same but `==` is false. Why? → They are different objects; use `equals`.

2.9 Operator precedence and associativity

What it is

Precedence decides which operator binds first (`*` before `+`); **associativity** decides the order among equal-precedence operators (most are left-to-right; assignment and the ternary are right-to-left). Operands themselves are always **evaluated left to right**.

Level (high → low)	Operators	Associativity
1 Postfix	`expr++` `expr--`	left
2 Unary	`++expr` `--expr` `+` `-` `~` `!` `(type)` cast	right
3 Multiplicative	`*` `/` `%`	left
4 Additive	`+` `-` (and string `+`)	left
5 Shift	`<<` `>>` `>>>`	left
6 Relational	`<` `>` `<=` `>=` `instanceof`	left
7 Equality	`==` `!=`	left
8 Bitwise AND	`&`	left
9 Bitwise XOR	`^`	left
10 Bitwise OR	`|`	left
11 Conditional AND	`&&`	left
12 Conditional OR	`||`	left
13 Ternary	`? :`	right
14 Assignment, lambda	`=` `+=` `-=` … `->`	right

`code/Precedence.java`:

```
System.out.println("2 + 3 * 4 = " + (2 + 3 * 4));
System.out.println("(2 + 3) * 4 = " + ((2 + 3) * 4));
System.out.println("10 - 4 - 3 = " + (10 - 4 - 3) + "  (left to right)");
int a, b, c;
a = b = c = 7;                                  // assignment is right-associative
System.out.println("a=" + a + " b=" + b + " c=" + c);
System.out.println(1 + 2 + "3" + 4 + 5);        // left to right: 3, then "33", "334", "3345"
System.out.println("true || false && false = " + (true || false && false));
int x = 6;
System.out.println("x & 1 == 0 needs parentheses: " + ((x & 1) == 0));
```

Output:

```
2 + 3 * 4 = 14
(2 + 3) * 4 = 20
10 - 4 - 3 = 3  (left to right)
a=7 b=7 c=7
3345
true || false && false = true
5 > 3 == true: true
x & 1 == 0 needs parentheses: true
```

- `&&` binds tighter than `||`, so `true || false && false` is `true || (false && false)`.
- `==` binds tighter than `&`, so `x & 1 == 0` means `x & (1 == 0)` — a compile error for `int x`. Always parenthesise bitwise tests.
- `+` is left-associative, so `1 + 2 + "3"` adds first, then concatenates.

Rule of thumb: remember "unary → multiplicative → additive → comparison → equality → logical → ternary → assignment", and add parentheses whenever a reader might hesitate.

2.10 Integer overflow

What it is

Integer arithmetic in Java is done modulo 2^{32} (`int`) or 2^{64} (`long`) — that is, only the remainder after dividing by 2^{32} or 2^{64} is kept. When a result exceeds the range it silently **wraps around** — no exception, no warning. This is **overflow**.

Analogy: a car odometer with six digits rolls from 999 999 to 000 000.

> **Key term — two's complement:** the way computers store negative integers. The top bit is the sign bit, and a negative number −n is stored as the bit pattern of $2^{32} - n$ (for `int`). This lets the same adding circuit handle positive and negative numbers, and it is why adding 1 to the largest `int` produces the most negative one.

Why it matters

Overflow bugs are real and expensive: the binary-search (finding an item in sorted data by repeatedly halving the range) midpoint bug `(low + high) / 2` sat in the JDK's own `Arrays.binarySearch` for years (fixed in 2006), and timestamps multiplied in `int` produce negative durations.

`code/Overflow.java`:

```
int max = Integer.MAX_VALUE;
System.out.println("MAX_VALUE + 1 = " + (max + 1));
System.out.println("Math.abs(Integer.MIN_VALUE) = " + Math.abs(Integer.MIN_VALUE));

int low = 2_000_000_000, high = 2_100_000_000;
System.out.println("(low + high) / 2 = " + (low + high) / 2 + "   <- overflow bug");
System.out.println("low + (high - low) / 2 = " + (low + (high - low) / 2));
System.out.println("(low + high) >>> 1 = " + ((low + high) >>> 1));

try { Math.addExact(max, 1); }
catch (ArithmeticException e) { System.out.println("Math.addExact(MAX, 1) -> " + e.getMessage()); }
long seconds = 30L * 24 * 60 * 60 * 1000;     // L on the first operand: all long math
```

Output:

```
MAX_VALUE + 1 = -2147483648
Math.abs(Integer.MIN_VALUE) = -2147483648
-Integer.MIN_VALUE = -2147483648
(low + high) / 2 = -97483648   <- overflow bug
low + (high - low) / 2 = 2050000000
(low + high) >>> 1 = 2050000000
Math.addExact(MAX, 1) -> integer overflow
Math.toIntExact(3e9) -> integer overflow
30 days in ms (long) = 2592000000, as int math = -1702967296
```

How to defend

Technique	Example
Use a wider type early	`long total = (long) a * b;` or `30L * …`
Throw instead of wrapping	`Math.addExact`, `subtractExact`, `multiplyExact`, `incrementExact`, `negateExact`, `toIntExact` (Java 8), `absExact` (Java 15)
Rearrange the formula	`low + (high - low) / 2`
Unlimited size	`BigInteger` (Chapter 7)

Note that `Math.abs(Integer.MIN_VALUE)` is still negative, because +2 147 483 648 does not fit in an `int`.

In the interview

Q: What happens when an `int` overflows in Java? It wraps around silently using two's-complement arithmetic (`MAX_VALUE + 1 == MIN_VALUE`). Use `long`, `Math.*Exact` methods (which throw `ArithmeticException`), or `BigInteger`.

- *Where have you seen overflow in practice?* Binary-search midpoints, hash-code arithmetic (intentional), millisecond calculations, summing large arrays of `int`.

2.11 Floating-point numbers

What it is

`float` and `double` follow **IEEE 754** binary floating point: a number is stored as sign × binary fraction (mantissa) × 2^exponent. Most decimal fractions (0.1, 0.2) have no exact binary form — just as 1/3 has no exact decimal form — so they are stored as the nearest representable value.

`code/FloatingPoint.java`:

```
System.out.println("0.1 + 0.2 = " + (0.1 + 0.2));
System.out.println("0.1 + 0.2 == 0.3: " + (0.1 + 0.2 == 0.3));
System.out.println("|diff| < 1e-9: " + (Math.abs((0.1 + 0.2) - 0.3) < 1e-9));
double nan = 0.0 / 0;
System.out.println("NaN == NaN: " + (nan == nan) + ", Double.isNaN: " + Double.isNaN(nan));
System.out.println("-0.0 == 0.0: " + (-0.0 == 0.0) + ", Double.compare(-0.0, 0.0): " +
Double.compare(-0.0, 0.0));
double total = 0;
for (int i = 0; i < 10; i++) total += 0.1;
BigDecimal exact = new BigDecimal("0.1").add(new BigDecimal("0.2"));
```

Output:

```
0.1 + 0.2 = 0.30000000000000004
0.1 + 0.2 == 0.3: false
|diff| < 1e-9: true
0.1f + 0.2f = 0.3
1.0 - 0.9 = 0.09999999999999998
NaN == NaN: false, Double.isNaN: true
-0.0 == 0.0: true, Double.compare(-0.0, 0.0): -1
1e308 * 10 = Infinity, Math.sqrt(-1) = NaN
16777217 as float = 1.6777216E7  (2^24 + 1 not representable)
0.1 added ten times = 0.9999999999999999
BigDecimal 0.1 + 0.2 = 0.3, new BigDecimal(0.1) =
0.1000000000000000055511151231257827021181583404541015625
Math.round(2.5)=3 Math.round(-2.5)=-2 Math.floor(-2.5)=-3.0 Math.ceil(-2.5)=-2.0
```

(`0.1f + 0.2f` *prints* as `0.3` only because `float`'s shorter printed form hides the error.)

Special values

Value	Produced by	Test with
`Infinity`, `-Infinity`	overflow (`1e308 * 10`), `1.0 / 0`	`Double.isInfinite(x)`
`NaN` (Not a Number)	`0.0 / 0`, `Math.sqrt(-1)`	`Double.isNaN(x)` — **never** `x == Double.NaN` (NaN is not equal to anything, even itself)
`-0.0`	`-1.0 / Double.POSITIVE_INFINITY`, rounding tiny negatives	equals `0.0` with `==`, but `Double.compare` and `Double.equals` distinguish it

How to handle it

1. **Compare with a tolerance**, not `==`: `Math.abs(a - b) < 1e-9` (choose the tolerance for your domain).
2. **Money**: use `long` minor units (cents) or `BigDecimal` constructed from a **`String`** (`new BigDecimal("0.1")`) or `BigDecimal.valueOf(0.1)` — `new BigDecimal(0.1)` captures the binary error exactly, as shown above.
3. **Rounding**: `Math.round` rounds half **up toward positive infinity** (`-2.5 → -2`); `Math.floor`/`ceil` return `double`. For decimal rounding modes (half-even — round a trailing 5 to the nearest even digit — as banks use), use `BigDecimal.setScale`.
4. **Loops**: never use a `double` as a loop counter compared with `==` — after ten additions of 0.1 you have 0.9999999999999999, not 1.0.
5. Since Java 17 (JEP 306) all floating-point arithmetic is strict IEEE 754 on every platform, so results are reproducible; the `strictfp` modifier is obsolete.

In the interview

Q: Why is `0.1 + 0.2 != 0.3` in Java? 0.1 and 0.2 cannot be represented exactly in binary floating point; the stored approximations sum to 0.30000000000000004. Compare with a tolerance, or use `BigDecimal` for exact decimal arithmetic such as money.

- *How do you check for NaN?* `Double.isNaN(x)`; `x != x` also works because NaN is the only value not equal to itself.
- *Why not `new BigDecimal(0.1)`?* It converts the already-inexact double; use the String constructor or `BigDecimal.valueOf`.

Self-check

1. What does `1 / 0.0` give? And `1 / 0`? → `Infinity`; `ArithmeticException`.

2. Best type for a bank balance? → `BigDecimal` (or `long` cents).
3. `Math.round(-0.5)`? → `0`.

2.12 Strings and text blocks

What it is

A `String` is an object holding an immutable sequence of characters. It is a reference type with special support: literals (`"hi"`), the `+` concatenation operator, and a pool of shared literals. This section covers what you need for the next chapters; the full API, `StringBuilder` and formatting in depth are in Chapter 7.

`code/StringBasics.java`:

```
String message = "Hello" + ", " + "Ada" + "!";
System.out.println(message + " length=" + message.length());
System.out.println("charAt(0)=" + message.charAt(0) + " indexOf(\"Ada\")=" + message.indexOf("Ada")
        + " substring(7, 10)=" + message.substring(7, 10));

String s = "java";
s.toUpperCase();                        // result thrown away: Strings are immutable
System.out.println("after s.toUpperCase(): " + s);
s = s.toUpperCase();                    // reassign the variable to the new String
System.out.println("after s = s.toUpperCase(): " + s);

String a = "hi", b = "hi", c = new String("hi");
System.out.println("a == b: " + (a == b) + " (same pooled literal), a == c: " + (a == c)
        + ", a.equals(c): " + a.equals(c) + ", \"HI\".equalsIgnoreCase(a): " +
"HI".equalsIgnoreCase(a));
System.out.println("String.valueOf(42) + 1 = " + String.valueOf(42) + 1
        + ", Integer.parseInt(\"42\") + 1 = " + (Integer.parseInt("42") + 1));
System.out.println("'a' + 'b' = " + ('a' + 'b') + ", \"\" + 'a' + 'b' = " + ("" + 'a' + 'b'));
```

Output:

```
Hello, Ada! length=11
charAt(0)=H indexOf("Ada")=7 substring(7, 10)=Ada
upper=HELLO, ADA! contains Ada? true
after s.toUpperCase(): java
after s = s.toUpperCase(): JAVA
a == b: true (same pooled literal), a == c: false, a.equals(c): true, "HI".equalsIgnoreCase(a): true
compareTo: -1, isBlank: true, strip: [pad], repeat: abababab
String.valueOf(42) + 1 = 421, Integer.parseInt("42") + 1 = 43
'a' + 'b' = 195, "" + 'a' + 'b' = ab
null concatenated: null
```

Key facts

Fact	Consequence
Immutable — no method changes a `String`	Methods return a *new* string; assign the result. Safe to share between threads (independent paths of execution running at the same time) and as `HashMap` keys (the lookup values in a map).
String pool — identical literals share one object	`"hi" == "hi"` is `true`, but `new String("hi")` makes a distinct object. Never rely on `==`; use `equals`.
Indexes are **0-based** (the first character is at index 0); `substring(begin, end)` excludes `end`	`"Hello".substring(1, 3)` is `"el"`; out-of-range throws `StringIndexOutOfBoundsException`.
`+` with any `String` operand concatenates	Numbers are converted with `String.valueOf`; `null` becomes `"null"`. Adding two `char`s is **numeric** (`'a' + 'b' == 195`).
Concatenating in a loop creates many objects	Use `StringBuilder` (a changeable, growable string) in loops (Chapter 7).
Converting	`String.valueOf(x)` / `"" + x` to text; `Integer.parseInt`, `Double.parseDouble` from text (throw `NumberFormatException` on bad input).

Most-used methods (Java version for newer ones): `length`, `charAt`, `indexOf`, `substring`, `contains`, `startsWith`/`endsWith`, `toUpperCase`/`toLowerCase`, `trim`, `strip` (11), `isEmpty`, `isBlank` (11), `repeat` (11), `lines` (11), `replace`, `split`, `equals`, `equalsIgnoreCase`, `compareTo`, `String.join`, `formatted` (15).

Text blocks (Java 15)

A **text block** (JEP 378, final in Java 15) is a multi-line string literal opened by `"""` followed by a line break and closed by `"""`. It is still an ordinary `String`.

`code/TextBlocks.java`:

```
String json = """
        {
          "name": "Ada",
          "langs": ["Java", "SQL"]
        }
        """;
System.out.print(json);

String sql = """
    SELECT id, name
    FROM users
    WHERE active = true\
    """;                                    // \ at line end: no newline there
System.out.println("[" + sql + "]");

String spaces = """
    trailing kept:\s
    quote: \""" inside
    """;
System.out.print(spaces.replace(' ', '.'));

String html = """
    <p>Hello, %s!</p>
    """.formatted("World");
```

Output:

```
{
  "name": "Ada",
  "langs": ["Java", "SQL"]
}
[SELECT id, name
FROM users
WHERE active = true]
trailing.kept:.
quote:."""inside
<p>Hello, World!</p>
lines in json: 4
```

How the compiler processes a text block:

1. The content starts on the line **after** the opening `"""` (text on the same line is a compile error).
2. **Incidental indentation** is removed: the compiler finds the smallest indentation among non-blank lines *and the closing `"""` line*, and strips that much from every line. Move the closing delimiter (the `"""` marker) left to keep more indentation.
3. Trailing spaces on each line are stripped; line endings become `\n` whatever the OS.
4. Escapes are processed last. Two escapes were added for text blocks: `\<line-end>` joins lines (no newline), and `\s` is a single space that survives stripping.
5. If the closing `"""` is on its own line, the string ends with `\n`; if it follows text directly, it doesn't.

Use text blocks for embedded SQL (database query language), JSON (a text format for structured data), HTML (web-page markup) and test fixtures (fixed sample data used by tests). For exam-level indentation traps, see the OCP repo's text blocks section.

Common mistakes

- `if (input == "yes")` — compares identity; use `"yes".equals(input)` (also null-safe).
- Calling `s.trim();` without assigning the result.

- `"Total: " + a + b` when `a`, `b` are numbers → concatenates both (`"Total: 12"`); write `"Total: " + (a + b)`.

Self-check

1. `"abc".substring(1)`? → `"bc"`.
2. Why is `"yes".equals(input)` better than `input.equals("yes")`? → It does not throw if `input` is `null`.
3. Does a text block with the closing `"""` on its own line end with a newline? → Yes.

2.13 Console output and input

Output: `print`, `println`, `printf`

`System.out` is a `PrintStream` (Java's class for writing text) connected to **standard output** (the program's normal output, the terminal by default); `System.err` to **standard error** (a separate stream — a channel that data flows through — shown in red by many IDEs, useful for diagnostics that should not mix with data output).

`code/Formatting.java`:

```
System.out.print("print has no newline; ");
System.out.println("println adds one.");
System.out.printf("%-10s|%5d|%8.2f|%n", "Coffee", 3, 4.5);
System.out.printf("%-10s|%05d|%8.3e|%n", "Padded", 42, 12345.678);
System.out.printf("%s %b %c %x %o %%%n", "str", true, 'J', 255, 8);
System.out.printf(Locale.GERMANY, "German: %,.2f%n", 1234567.891);
System.out.printf(Locale.US, "US:     %,.2f%n", 1234567.891);
String line = String.format("Total: %.2f", qty * price);
String line2 = "Items: %d".formatted(qty);         // Java 15
System.err.println("(this line goes to standard error)");
```

Output:

```
print has no newline; println adds one.
Coffee    |    3|    4.50|
Padded    |00042|1.235e+04|
str true J ff 10 %
German: 1.234.567,89
US:     1,234,567.89
Total: 13.50 / Items: 3
(this line goes to standard error)
```

Specifier	Meaning	Flags/width examples
`%s`	any value via `toString()` (the method every object has that returns its text form)	`%-10s` left-align in 10 chars
`%d`	integer (`int`, `long`, `BigInteger`)	`%5d` width 5, `%05d` zero-pad, `%,d` grouping
`%f`, `%e`	decimal, scientific	`%.2f` two decimals (rounds half-up)
`%b`, `%c`	boolean, char	
`%x`, `%o`	hex, octal	`%08X`
`%n`	platform line separator (`\n` on Linux/macOS, `\r\n` on Windows)	prefer over `\n` in `printf`
`%%`	a literal `%`	

Formatting is **locale-sensitive**: the default locale (a language-and-region setting such as German or US English) decides the decimal and grouping separators, which is why tests and machine-readable output should pass an explicit `Locale` (e.g. `Locale.ROOT` or `Locale.US`). A mismatched type (`%d` with a `double`) throws `IllegalFormatConversionException` at run time.

Input: four options

Option	Best for	Notes
`Scanner` (`java.util`)	Beginner programs, parsing numbers and words	Tokenises input (splits it into words, called tokens) by whitespace; `nextInt`, `nextDouble`, `next`, `nextLine`, `hasNextInt`… Slow for very large input.
`IO.readln(prompt)` (`java.lang.IO`, **Java 25**)	Simplest line input	Returns a line as `String` (or `null` at end of input); pairs with `IO.println`.
`BufferedReader` over `InputStreamReader(System.in)`	Fast line-by-line reading (competitive programming, large input)	`readLine()` returns `null` at end; you parse numbers yourself; throws `IOException`.
`System.console()` → `java.io.Console`	Passwords (`readPassword` does not echo, i.e. show, the typed characters)	Returns `null` when there is no interactive terminal (IDE consoles, redirected input — input fed from a file with `<` instead of the keyboard) — always check.

Pick one reader per program. Each of them buffers `System.in` (reads ahead into its own memory); if a `Scanner` reads ahead, a `BufferedReader` created later will not see that input.

Deterministic `Scanner` demo reading from a `String` (`code/ScannerDemo.java`) — a real program would use `new Scanner(System.in)`:

```
String fakeKeyboard = """
        Ada Lovelace
        36
        1.5 2.5 3.0
        done
        """;
Scanner in = new Scanner(fakeKeyboard);
String fullName = in.nextLine();          // whole line
int age = in.nextInt();                   // one token -> int
in.nextLine();                            // consume the rest of the "36" line!
double sum = 0;
while (in.hasNextDouble()) sum += in.nextDouble();
String word = in.next();                  // next token

Scanner trap = new Scanner("42\nAlan Turing\n");
int n = trap.nextInt();
String afterInt = trap.nextLine();        // returns the EMPTY rest of the first line

Scanner bad = new Scanner("forty-two");
if (!bad.hasNextInt()) System.out.println("not an int: " + bad.next());
```

Output:

```
name=Ada Lovelace, age=36, sum=7.0, word=done
n=42, nextLine after nextInt=[], then=[Alan Turing]
not an int: forty-two
```

The `nextInt` + `nextLine` trap: `nextInt()` reads the number but leaves the line break; the following `nextLine()` returns the empty remainder of that line. Call an extra `nextLine()` after `nextInt()` (as above), or read every line with `nextLine()` and parse with `Integer.parseInt`. Calling `nextInt()` on non-numeric input throws `InputMismatchException` — guard with `hasNextInt()`.

The interactive version, `code/Interactive.java`, takes the reading style as an argument (`java -cp out ch02.io.Interactive scanner|io|reader|console`). Key part and a real run with the `console` mode in a terminal:

```
Console console = System.console();          // null if not an interactive terminal
if (console == null) {
    System.out.println("No interactive console (IDE or redirected input).");
    return;
}
char[] secret = console.readPassword("Password (not echoed): ");
if (secret == null) return;                   // end of input (Ctrl+D)
System.out.println("Password length: " + secret.length);
Arrays.fill(secret, ' ');                     // wipe it from memory
```

```
Password (not echoed):
Password length: 7
```

With input redirected (`… console < file.txt`) it prints `No interactive console (IDE or redirected input).` Passwords are returned as `char[]`, not `String`, so you can wipe them (a `String` stays in memory until garbage-collected, i.e. freed automatically by the JVM at some later time). (In JDK 22–24 `System.console()` could return a `Console` even when redirected; JDK 25 returns to the older default, and JDK 26 made `null` the rule whenever input or output is redirected.)

`java.lang.IO` also works in ordinary classes (`code/IOClassDemo.java`):

```
IO.print("IO.print, ");
IO.println("IO.println");
IO.println(42);
IO.println();
IO.println("done");
```

Output:

```
IO.print, IO.println
42

done
```

Command-line arguments (`String[] args`) are the other common input channel — see Chapter 4.

Self-check

1. After `int n = sc.nextInt();` the user's next line is skipped. Why and how to fix? → `nextInt` left the newline; call `sc.nextLine()` once, or read lines and parse.
2. Why is `readPassword` a `char[]`? → So it can be overwritten after use.
3. `System.console()` returns `null` in your IDE. Bug? → No; there is no interactive terminal. Handle `null`.

Chapter TL;DR

- Eight primitives: `byte short int long` (8/16/32/64-bit signed), `float double` (IEEE 754), `char` (16-bit unsigned UTF-16 unit), `boolean`. Everything else is a reference (or `null`).
- Locals must be assigned before use; fields get defaults. `final` = assign once (the object can still change). `var` (Java 10) infers local types; the type is still fixed.
- Literals: `L` for long, `f` for float, `0x` / `0b` /leading-`0` for hex/binary/octal, `_` separators.
- Widening is automatic (but `int/long → float` can lose precision); narrowing needs a cast and truncates/wraps. `byte/short/char` promote to `int` in arithmetic; compound assignment hides a cast.
- Integer `/` truncates; `%` follows the dividend's sign (`Math.floorMod` otherwise); integer `/0` throws, floating `/0` gives Infinity/NaN.
- `&&` / `||` short-circuit; `&` / `|` do not. `==` on references compares identity — use `equals` for content.
- Precedence: unary → `* / %` → `+ -` → shifts → relational → equality → `&` `^` `|` → `&&` → `||` → `?:` → assignment. Parenthesise when in doubt.
- Overflow wraps silently: use `long`, `Math.*Exact`, or `BigInteger`. Floating point is approximate: compare with tolerance; money in `BigDecimal`/cents.
- `String` is immutable and pooled; text blocks (Java 15) for multi-line literals with incidental-indentation stripping.
- Output with `println`/`printf` (locale-aware); input with `Scanner` (mind the `nextLine` trap), `IO.readln` (Java 25), `BufferedReader`, or `Console` for passwords — one reader per program.
- Exam-trap depth: OCP Chapter 1, OCP Chapter 2. Next: Chapter 3 — Control flow.